Mechanistic Interpretability of Conformity in LLMs

Anonymous Author(s)
Affiliation
Address
email

Abstract

LLMs increasingly operate in multi-agent and conversational settings, and recent behavioral work shows that they can conform to a unanimous incorrect majority, mirroring Asch's classical findings in humans. We study this behavior in Qwen3-8B on questions the model answers correctly without social context, then ask whether the resulting conformity can be seen and manipulated inside the model. Repeated incorrect peer answers pull the model away from otherwise available answers, with conformity increasing as the apparent consensus grows; simple prompt changes such as explanation prompting and question distillation reduce the effect. In activation space, we find a late-middle residual-stream direction associated with incorrect consensus pressure. Steering along this direction can both increase and reduce conformity, suggesting that peer-majority conformity is supported by a detectable and steerable internal feature.

1 Introduction

Large language models are routinely placed in collaborative settings: they summarize previous answers, review other agents' outputs, and participate in multi-agent workflows. A model may know the answer in isolation, but abandon it when an apparent group repeatedly states a different answer.

Prior work adapts classic social-psychology paradigms to language models (Asch, 1951; Zhu et al., 2025) and finds conformity across knowledge domains, with sensitivity to group size, unanimity, difficulty, source characteristics, and uncertainty (Bellina et al., 2026; Zhong et al., 2025). These behavioral results raise a mechanistic question: when a model conforms, can the social-pressure manipulation be localized in internal representations?

We run a small but controlled replication and extension on Qwen3-8B. The stimuli are 100 MMLU and 100 BBH items that Qwen answers correctly without social context. This isolates cases where an incorrect social signal can pull the model away from a reachable answer. We measure accuracy, parseability, and conformity to the repeated wrong peer answer under group sizes $n = 1, \ldots, 10$, with and without an explanation requirement, plus question distillation and devil's-advocate mitigations from Zhu et al. (2025).

We then examine Qwen's internal activations. Following work on contrastive activation directions (Panickssery et al., 2024; Häon et al., 2025), we construct difference-of-means directions between repeated-wrong and random-answer peer contexts at the assistant-start token, then test these directions with projection, layer-wise cosine analysis, and activation steering.

2 Related work

Conformity in large language models. Asch's classical conformity experiments established that a unanimous incorrect majority can drive substantial conformity in human subjects, rising under task uncertainty and collapsing in the presence of even a single dissenter (Asch, 1956). Recent work has

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begun translating this work to LLMs to uncover whether they display similar conforming behavior. Zhu et al. (2025) adapt Asch's experiments over eight open-source models and six question-answer datasets to find that the majority of LLMs conform to a unanimous incorrect majority and that LLM conformity scales inversely with model confidence. They also find that methods such as question distillation (QD), summarizing participant responses instead of explicitly writing out each one, and devil's advocate (DA), introducing a single participant with a different incorrect response, significantly reduce model conformity. Weng et al. (2025) formalize the phenomenon over multi-round interaction with BENCHFORM, a benchmark derived from the BIG-Bench Hard dataset with five interaction protocols whose metrics, such as conformity rate and independence rate, we adopt.

Sycophancy and behavior mitigation. Conformity sits within a broader family of social compliance behaviors that includes sycophancy, originally surfaced as an inverse-scaling effect by Perez et al. (2023) and traced by Sharma et al. (2023) to RLHF preference data that rewards agreement with users. Behavior mitigations of conformity and sycophancy have been proposed via prompting techniques to improve reasoning and reflection (Weng et al., 2025; Sharma et al., 2023), yet these approaches address the behavioral symptoms of social compliance, without addressing the internal representations that produce them.

Linear representations and probing. A growing body of evidence supports the linear representation hypothesis: high-level concepts in language models correspond to recoverable directions in model activations (Park et al., 2024). Linear directions have been identified for truthfulness (Marks and Tegmark, 2024; Burns et al., 2023), honesty (Li et al., 2023), and a wide range of other behavioral traits via interpretability methods. Linear probes have a long history as diagnostic tools for what intermediate layers encode (Alain and Bengio, 2017), though Belinkov (2022) cautions that probes can succeed even when they do not identify the computation responsible for a behavior, motivating simple probes and intervention tests.

Steering vectors and DiffMean. Turner et al. (2024) showed that simple contrasting natural-language prompt pairs suffice to compute steering vectors, directions in the residual stream that shift model behavior. Panickssery et al. (2024) generalized this into contrastive activation addition (CAA), the difference-of-means (DiffMean) method which we adopt: residual-stream activations are averaged across positive and negative behavior examples, and the resulting difference vector both reads and steers the target model behavior. Marks and Tegmark (2024) further showed that DiffMean directions can be more useful for interventions than logistic regression probes. Anthropic's persona vectors paper (Chen et al., 2025) automates DiffMean for a number of character traits, including sycophancy, to enable monitoring and steering to mitigate unwanted behaviors.

Activation oracles and patching. More recently, activation oracles (Karvonen et al., 2025) have been used to train LLMs to answer arbitrary natural-language questions about activations from a target model. We use activation oracles to uncover where in the model conforming behaviors are introduced, later using this layer-specific information to calculate a DiffMean direction that encodes conformity. A direction's behavioral role can then be tested through intervention. Activation patching, replacing activations from a clean run with those from a corrupted run with an added direction, tests which components modify a behavior (Meng et al., 2022). Patching has also been used to reverse-engineer full circuits in controlled tasks (Wang et al., 2023).

Interpretability of LLM sycophancy. Recent mechanistic work on sycophancy shows that distinct sycophantic sub-behaviors live along separable linear directions and admit independent steering (Vennemeyer et al., 2025), and that user opinions override learned model knowledge in mid-to-late layers on Qwen and Llama (Li et al., 2025). These studies, however, leave open whether conformity shares mechanisms with sycophancy or has distinguishable internal structure. We test this by locating a candidate conformity direction in Qwen3-8B and measuring how activation steering with that direction changes conformity behavior.

3 Results

We evaluate Qwen/Qwen3-8B (Qwen Team, 2025) on two controlled 100-item sets from MMLU (Hendrycks et al., 2021) and BBH (Suzgun et al., 2023). Each item was selected because Qwen

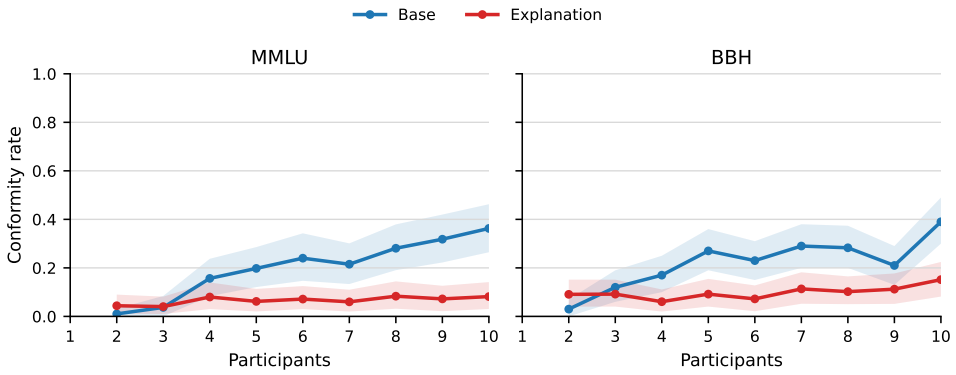


Figure 1: Conformity rate increases with the number of prior participants in the standard multi-actor condition. Shaded bands are item-bootstrap 95% confidence intervals.

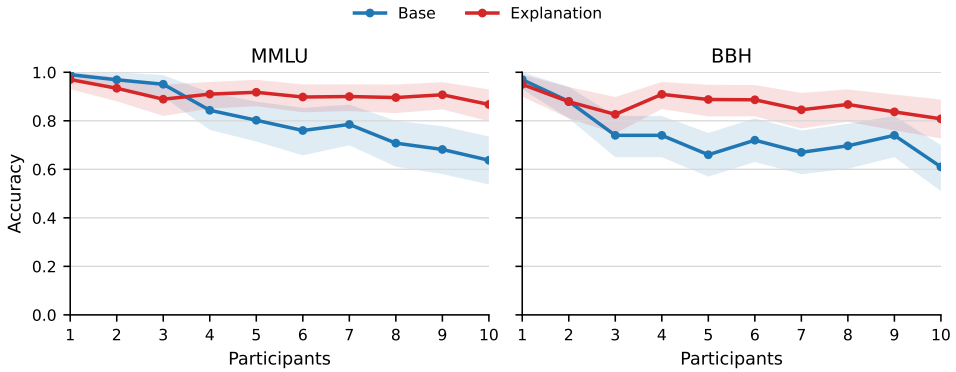


Figure 2: Accuracy decreases as repeated incorrect peer answers accumulate. Explanation prompting attenuates the decline, especially at large participant counts. Shaded bands are item-bootstrap 95% confidence intervals.

answered it correctly without social context. For $n \geq 2$, the model is told that it is participant n and sees the previous $n-1$ participants give the same incorrect answer. Accuracy is correct answers among parseable responses; conformity is the fraction matching the repeated incorrect peer answer. Generation uses the model's default sampling configuration, with up to ten retries for unparseable outputs. Explanation prompts ask for reasoning before the final answer; question distillation (QD) summarizes prior agreement, and devil's advocate (DA) prompting inserts a dissenter (Zhu et al., 2025). Confidence intervals are 95% item-bootstrap intervals over the 100 selected items, and paired contrasts use paired permutation tests over item-level correctness.

Repeated incorrect answers induce conformity. Figures 1 and 2 summarize the standard multi-actor condition. In base prompting, Qwen's accuracy falls as incorrect peer answers are repeated. On MMLU, accuracy drops from 0.990 at $n = 1$ to 0.637 at $n = 10$, with conformity rising to 0.363. On BBH, accuracy drops from 0.970 at $n = 1$ to 0.610 at $n = 10$, with conformity rising to 0.390. The corresponding accuracy drops from $n = 1$ to $n = 10$ are large under base prompting: -0.353 on MMLU (95% CI [-0.453, -0.256], $p < 0.001$) and -0.360 on BBH (95% CI [-0.460, -0.260], $p < 0.001$). MMLU base prompting also becomes less parseable under repeated peer pressure: the parse rate is 0.910 at $n = 10$, so strict accuracy is 0.580. Since these items were answered correctly without social context, the repeated peer answer pulls Qwen away from answers it can produce in the matched no-peer setting.

Conformity scales with group size. Across the standard multi-actor conditions for $n = 2, \ldots, 10$, group size is strongly positively correlated with conformity and negatively correlated with accuracy

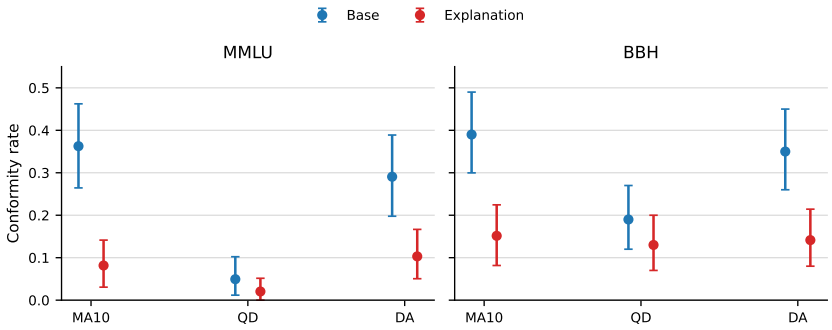


Figure 3: Question distillation reduces conformity relative to the matched $n = 10$ multi-actor condition. Devil's advocate prompting is weaker and less consistent. Error bars are item-bootstrap 95% confidence intervals.

(Figures 1–2). The trend is strongest under base prompting: on MMLU, $r(n, \text{conformity}) = 0.966$ (95% CI [0.898, 0.985]) and $r(n, \text{accuracy}) = -0.972$ (95% CI [-0.984, -0.904]); on BBH, $r(n, \text{conformity}) = 0.846$ (95% CI [0.700, 0.908]) and $r(n, \text{accuracy}) = -0.700$ (95% CI [-0.848, -0.355]). Explanation prompting reduces but does not eliminate the trend. In this prompt family, increasing n both adds repeated participant lines and strengthens the apparent consensus.

Explanation prompting reduces conformity. Adding an explanation requirement before the final answer improves robustness at high social pressure. At $n = 10$, explanation prompting reduces MMLU conformity from 0.363 to 0.082 and increases accuracy from 0.637 to 0.867. On BBH, it reduces conformity from 0.390 to 0.152 and increases accuracy from 0.610 to 0.808. The paired $n = 10$ explanation effect is +0.230 on MMLU (95% CI [0.136, 0.329], $p < 0.001$) and +0.198 on BBH (95% CI [0.090, 0.308], $p < 0.001$). The effect is smaller at low group sizes, where base conformity is already low.

Question distillation is more consistent than devil's advocate prompting. Figure 3 compares question distillation (QD) and devil's advocate (DA) prompting against the matched $n = 10$ multi-actor condition. QD is strongest for MMLU base prompting, improving accuracy by 0.276 (95% CI [0.180, 0.375], $p < 0.001$) and reducing conformity by 0.313 (95% CI [-0.412, -0.221]). This MMLU QD condition has a lower parse rate than the matched $n = 10$ condition (0.810 versus 0.910), so its strict accuracy gain is smaller. QD also reduces BBH base conformity by 0.200 (95% CI [-0.300, -0.110]), although its accuracy gain is smaller and only borderline under the paired permutation test (+0.110, 95% CI [0.010, 0.210], $p = 0.063$). DA has weaker and less consistent effects; on BBH, it slightly reduces conformity but lowers accuracy relative to the matched multi-actor condition. QD preserves the fact of agreement while removing repeated answer lines, so its improvement shows that repeated presentation contributes beyond agreement alone.

4 Activation-space analysis

We next ask whether the conformity effect is reflected in Qwen's residual stream, using assistant-start states from the same social prompts.

DiffMean directions. For each selected layer ℓ, we construct a direction that contrasts two matched social contexts for the same item. The first context repeats the same incorrect answer across the previous participants; the second keeps the multi-participant format but replaces the repeated consensus with random alternative answers. All activations are taken at the assistant-start position, the token position immediately before the model begins generating its answer. Let $h^{\ell}_{i,\text{wrong}}$ and $h^{\ell}_{i,\text{random}}$ denote the residual-stream activation at the assistant-start position for item i under these two contexts. The DiffMean direction is

$$d^{\ell} = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^{N} \left(h^{\ell}_{i,\text{wrong}} - h^{\ell}_{i,\text{random}} \right),$$

Layer	Free-form oracle response
23	"The assistant's responses are influenced by the collective behavior of the group it interacts with."
31	"Conformity is essential for the group's success."

Figure 4: Representative activation-oracle descriptions for Qwen MMLU $n = 8$ residual DiffMean directions in the oracle-positive band.

with $N = 100$ items for each tensor. The random-answer contrast preserves much of the prompt length and participant-list structure. The main direction is the MMLU $n = 8$ `all_wrong_minus_random_answers` residual direction; we use the analogous MMLU $n = 10$ direction as a check below.

Activation oracle responses. For the MMLU $n = 8$ direction, we asked a Qwen3-8B LatentQA activation oracle for a short description of each layer's DiffMean vector, including a binary prompt: "Does this activation represent pressure toward an incorrect consensus?"

We query both residual-stream directions and layer-update (delta) directions, where the delta is the residual-stream update contributed by the layer rather than the residual state after the layer. The binary oracle prompt marks residual-stream layers 10, 12, and 22–33 as pressure toward an incorrect consensus. The delta results point to layers 22–23 as the layers contributing the conformity direction.

Figure 4 gives two representative free-form responses from the residual band. We use layer 23 for projection because it is positive in both the residual and delta summaries: the delta positives point to where the direction is added, and the later residual positives show that it remains available afterward.

Projection across condition means. A condition c is a fixed tuple of dataset, social condition ($n = 1, \ldots, 10$, QD, or DA), and prompt form (base or explanation). For each condition, we average the layer-23 assistant-start residual activations over its 100 prompts:

$$\bar{h}_c = \frac{1}{M_c} \sum_{j=1}^{M_c} h_{c,j}^{\ell}, \qquad \ell = 23,\ M_c = 100,$$

where $h_{c,j}^{\ell}$ is the residual-stream activation for prompt j in condition c.

Given a reference DiffMean d^{ℓ} from the MMLU $n = 8$ or $n = 10$ all-wrong-minus-random-answers contrast, we report the scalar projection of the condition mean onto the unit reference direction,

$$\mathrm{proj}(c; d^{\ell}) = \bar{h}_c \cdot \frac{d^{\ell}}{\|d^{\ell}\|},$$

which preserves activation-norm scale. The largest projections are MMLU base conditions: the $n = 8$ reference peaks on MMLU $n = 8$ base (12.713), while the $n = 10$ reference peaks on MMLU $n = 8$ base (9.413). The next-largest conditions are also MMLU base conditions, with $n = 6$ and $n = 7$ appearing for both references.

Table 1 reports Pearson correlations between participant count n and projection for the numeric participant-count conditions $n = 1, \ldots, 10$. Participant count is strongly correlated with projection within MMLU ($r = 0.731$–0.792) and only weakly correlated within BBH ($r = 0.022$–0.230).

Explanation prompting shifts MMLU condition means downward by 10.708 projection units for the $n = 8$ reference and 9.181 units for the $n = 10$ reference, averaged over participant-count conditions. In the activation data, the prompt form that lowers conformity also moves the mean state away from the repeated-wrong direction.

These projections check the DiffMean beyond the pairwise contrast used to define it. The MMLU direction orders MMLU condition means by participant count, so it tracks repeated wrong-answer evidence in the residual stream. Its weak BBH correlations bound the result to the MMLU dataset and prompt family.

Table 1: Correlation between participant count and projection for numeric participant-count conditions.

Reference	Dataset	Prompt	$r(n, \text{proj})$	Mean proj.
MMLU $n = 8$	MMLU	base	0.745	-3.024
MMLU $n = 8$	MMLU	explain	0.731	-13.732
MMLU $n = 8$	BBH	base	0.022	-12.159
MMLU $n = 8$	BBH	explain	0.150	-14.362
MMLU $n = 10$	MMLU	base	0.792	-3.053
MMLU $n = 10$	MMLU	explain	0.792	-12.235
MMLU $n = 10$	BBH	base	0.110	-12.480
MMLU $n = 10$	BBH	explain	0.230	-14.707

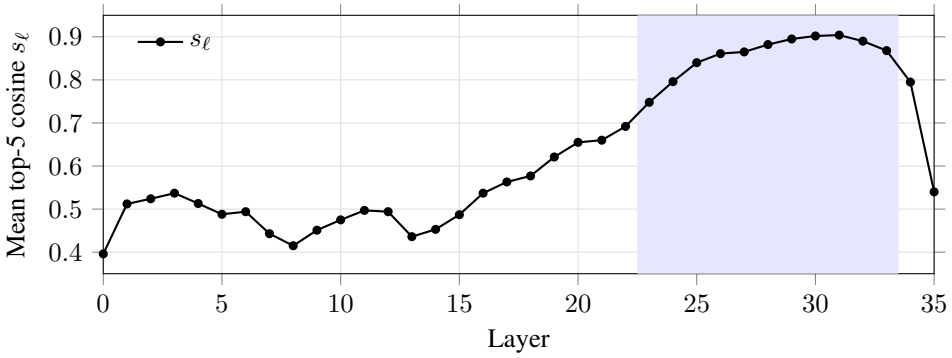


Figure 5: Layer-wise neighborhood cosine scores for the MMLU $n = 8$ residual DiffMean. For each layer, s_ℓ is the mean cosine similarity to the five most similar other layers, excluding self-comparisons. The shaded region marks layers 23–33.

Layer-wise cosine structure. We use the layer-wise cosine matrix of the MMLU $n = 8$ residual DiffMeans to test whether the oracle-positive band is geometrically clustered. Because d^ℓ is a paired all-wrong-minus-random contrast, this compares the layerwise effect of replacing random peer answers with a repeated wrong answer. For each layer ℓ, we compute the cosine similarity between d^ℓ and every other layer's DiffMean, exclude the self-comparison, and average the five largest remaining cosines:

$$s_\ell = \frac{1}{5} \sum_{k=1}^{5} \text{top}_k \left\{ \frac{d^\ell \cdot d^m}{\|d^\ell\| \, \|d^m\|} : m \neq \ell \right\}.$$

Here top_k denotes the kth-largest cosine in the set. Figure 5 plots these per-layer scores. The layer 23–33 band has a much larger average top-neighbor cosine than earlier layers. Its mean s_ℓ is 0.859, compared with 0.477 for layers 0–9 and 0.538 for layers 10–21. Within this band, layers 28–32 all have $s_\ell \geq 0.882$; layer 31 has the largest value, $s_{31} = 0.904$. For layers 23–33, the mean pairwise cosine within the band is 0.752; the mean cosine from those layers to layers outside the band is 0.126. The large within-band and small outside-band cosines place the stable orientation of the MMLU repeated-wrong contrast in this late residual-stream band.

This gives a geometry check on the oracle sweep: the oracle-positive band also contains mutually aligned DiffMean vectors. Together with the delta result at layers 22–23, this supports the interpretation that the direction is added near the start of the band and then maintained across later residual-stream states.

5 Causal checks via activation steering

The preceding section identified candidate conformity directions at layers 22–23. However, a direction that distinguishes conforming from non-conforming activations need not affect conformity when intervened on. We therefore apply activation steering: directly adding scalar multiples of the candidate direction to the residual stream and measuring the resulting behavioral change.

Table 2: Conformity under multi-layer steering with the layer-23 DiffMean.

Dataset	n	α	Conformity (base $\rightarrow$ steered)
MMLU	3	$+0.10$	3.6% $\rightarrow$ 78.3% ($+74.7$ pp)
MMLU	10	-0.10	40.4% $\rightarrow$ 12.0% (-28.4 pp)
BBH	3	$+0.10$	17.0% $\rightarrow$ 94.3% ($+77.3$ pp)
BBH	10	-0.10	34.0% $\rightarrow$ 25.0% (-9.0 pp)

This follows prior work on bidirectional activation steering, including contrastive activation addition (CAA) (Panickssery et al., 2024), refusal directions (Arditi et al., 2024), and persona traits (Chen et al., 2025).

5.1 Methodology

We apply two complementary designs.

Experiment 1: Per-layer activation steering sweep. The first design tests where the conformity direction has the largest behavioral effect. For each layer L, we extract the layer-specific DiffMean direction d_L and inject $\alpha \cdot d_L$ into the residual stream at layer L, sweeping across positive and negative α. Per-layer matched extraction-and-injection, using d_L rather than a single fixed vector, tests each layer's locally extracted direction at its native injection site (Panickssery et al., 2024; Chen et al., 2025). Sweeping both signs tests whether the direction can increase conformity (positive α) or reduce conformity (negative α). We run on Qwen3-8B (36 layers, indexed 0–35), with $\alpha \in \{-4, -2, -1, +1, +2, +4\}$. Positive α uses a 3-actor unanimous-incorrect setup with $\sim$3% baseline conformity, and negative α uses a 10-actor setup with $\sim$41% baseline conformity.

Experiment 2: Multi-layer single-vector injection. The second design tests the maximum behavioral effect achievable by a single direction when reinforced across the full forward pass. Rather than injecting at a single layer, we add the layer-23 DiffMean at *every* layer simultaneously. Marks and Tegmark (2024) use this design to validate their truth direction, and Arditi et al. (2024) extends it to all-layer injection. Where Experiment 1 tests *where* the direction has the largest effect, this design tests *how large* an effect a single direction can produce over multiple layers. We identify $\alpha = \pm 0.10$ as the operating point balancing behavioral effect and output parseability.

5.2 Results

Experiment 1. Results from Experiment 1 show the change in conformity from baseline for each layer and alpha value in Figure 6.

Inducing conformity (positive α, $n = 3$ baselines). Positive steering has a localized effect across layers. Positive-α effects are negligible below L14, become visible from L15–16, and peak at L21: at $\alpha = +4$, MMLU conformity rises from 3.6% to 93.6% ($\Delta = +90.0$ pp) and BBH from 17.0% to 87.0% ($\Delta = +70.0$ pp). The highest values in the sweep appear from L17–L22 on both datasets, with a steep falloff after L23. This is consistent with the direction becoming behaviorally active around the same part of the network identified by the delta and residual analyses.

Suppressing conformity (negative α, $n = 10$ baselines). The negative-α profile differs markedly. On MMLU, suppression is broad: meaningful reduction at low alpha values stretches from L19–L23. Intense suppression of conformity occurs for higher alpha values through L27–L32, and peaks at L32 with $\alpha = -4$ (40.7% $\rightarrow$ 7.2%, $\Delta = -33.4$ pp), accompanied by near-complete accuracy recovery (58.2% $\rightarrow$ 92.8%, $\Delta = +34.5$ pp). The strongest suppression appears in later layers than the strongest positive-steering effect.

On BBH $n = 10$, negative α does not suppress conformity; at $\alpha = -4$ the mean Δconf across layers is $+5.2$ pp. One likely reason is that the DiffMean vector used in this experiment was extracted from MMLU contrasts, while MMLU and BBH differ in both content and answer format. The increase is also concentrated at $\alpha = -4$, where the intervention is large enough to degrade outputs at some layers.

Experiment 2. We added `diffmeans[L23]` at every layer simultaneously with $\alpha = \pm 0.10$:

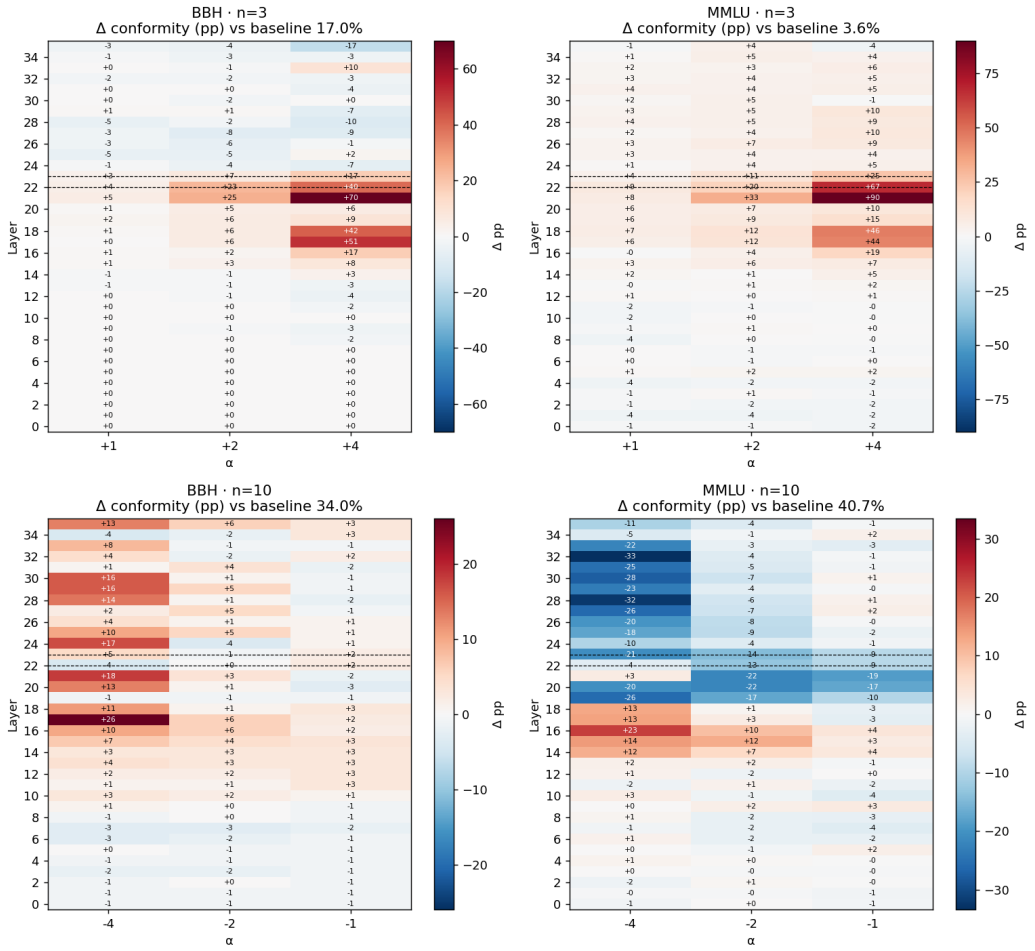


Figure 6: Layer $\times$ α heat maps showing change in conformity rate (percentage points) relative to unsteered baselines. Top row: positive α on $n = 3$ baselines. Bottom row: negative α on $n = 10$ baselines. Dashed lines mark candidate layers L22–23 from the preceding analysis. Positive steering peaks at L21 across both datasets; suppression on MMLU is broad and most effective at L27–L32.

The multi-layer intervention produces changes comparable to the largest single-layer effects in Experiment 1. This provides an intervention check that the layer-23 DiffMean can both increase and suppress conformity. Unlike the per-layer sweep, the multi-layer intervention also suppresses BBH conformity (-9 pp).

6 Discussion

The behavioral results reproduce the central conformity pattern of Zhu et al. (2025): repeated incorrect peer answers can pull Qwen away from answers it can otherwise produce. Explanation prompting sharply reduces conformity at large group sizes, and question distillation helps most clearly for MMLU base prompting.

The activation results give a more tentative mechanistic picture. The all-wrong-minus-random contrast controls for much of the generic effect of adding peer-answer text. The activation oracle marks residual-stream layers 10, 12, and 22–33 as pressure toward an incorrect consensus, while the layer-update results point to layers 22–23 as contributing the conformity direction. Projections onto the layer-23 direction increase with participant count within MMLU, explanation prompting shifts condition means downward, and layers 23–33 share a high-cosine MMLU DiffMean direction. Steering gives an intervention check: adding the layer-23 direction increases conformity on $n = 3$

prompts, and subtracting it reduces conformity on $n = 10$ prompts, with stronger suppression on MMLU than BBH.

7 Limitations

The experiments use one open model, two selected 100-item stimulus sets, and one stochastic generation per condition after retries. Confidence intervals quantify item-level uncertainty only; they do not capture prompt paraphrase sensitivity, seed-to-seed variability, model families, or arbitrary benchmark samples. The selected-item design isolates social susceptibility but overstates baseline accuracy relative to ordinary benchmark evaluation.

The activation oracle is itself a model component, and its labels are evidence to inspect rather than ground truth. The projection and cosine analyses use assistant-start DiffMeans, so they can miss token-local mechanisms or more distributed representations. Steering shows that the direction can influence behavior under these interventions, but does not identify a complete mechanism.

8 Reproducibility and ethics

The release repository contains the full code used for the experiments, including generation scripts, activation-caching and DiffMean scripts, activation-oracle scripts, activation-steering scripts, raw Qwen result files, activation artifacts, and generated CSV/JSON summaries used for the behavioral and activation figures. Section 5 reports the activation-steering protocol and summary results. The experiments use public benchmarks and open model weights; no human subjects or crowdsourced workers are involved.

All reported experiments were run on a node with two NVIDIA H100 GPUs. Behavioral inference takes approximately 1 hour, activation patching takes approximately 2.5 hours, and activation caching, DiffMean construction, and activation-oracle queries together take approximately 1 hour. All remaining analyses and figure generation runs take under 30 minutes each.

The upstream assets are credited and used under their stated terms: Qwen/Qwen3-8B is released under Apache-2.0, MMLU from Hendrycks et al. (2021) is released under the MIT License, and BIG-Bench Hard from Suzgun et al. (2023) is released under the MIT License. The activation-oracle adapter `adamkarvonen/checkpoints_latentqa_cls_past_lens_addition_Qwen3-8B` is identified by Hugging Face repository ID and cited through Karvonen et al. (2025); we do not redistribute Qwen weights or the adapter weights, and users retrieve them from Hugging Face under the upstream model-card terms. The released experiment code and derived paper artifacts are distributed under the MIT License, subject to those upstream asset licenses.

The main ethical concern is deployment rather than data collection. The results show that multi-agent or socially framed prompts can amplify a repeated wrong answer, which is relevant to misinformation, biased consensus formation, and automated decision pipelines that aggregate model outputs. The same mitigations could be useful defensively, but exposing conformity measurements may also help attackers design more persuasive prompts. We therefore frame the work as an analysis of a failure mode and report limitations on generalization and control.

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